



Chapter 19: Recovery System

Ensure that the database data is not corrupted or inconsistent in case of system failure

Database Principle and Design



Outline

- Failure Classification
- Recovery scheme
- Stable-Storage Implementation
- Backup and Restore



19.1 Failure Classification

- **System crash:** hardware malfunction, or a bug in the database software or the operating system causes the system to crash. These may result in inconsistent data in the database.
 - handled by recovery scheme
- **Disk failure:** disk failure may destroy all or part of disk storage. These may result in database corruption.
 - handled by stable storage(e.g, RAID)
- **Disaster:** fire, flood, earthquake, war, human operation error. These may also result in database corruption.
 - handled by backup



19.2 Recovery scheme

- **Recovery scheme** is an integral part of a database system. It ensures the **atomicity** and **durability** properties of transactions by restoring the database to the consistent state that existed before the failure.
- **Recovery scheme** usually have two parts:
 1. Actions taken during normal transaction processing to ensure enough information exists to recover from failures
 2. Actions taken after a failure to recover the database contents to a state that ensures atomicity, consistency and durability



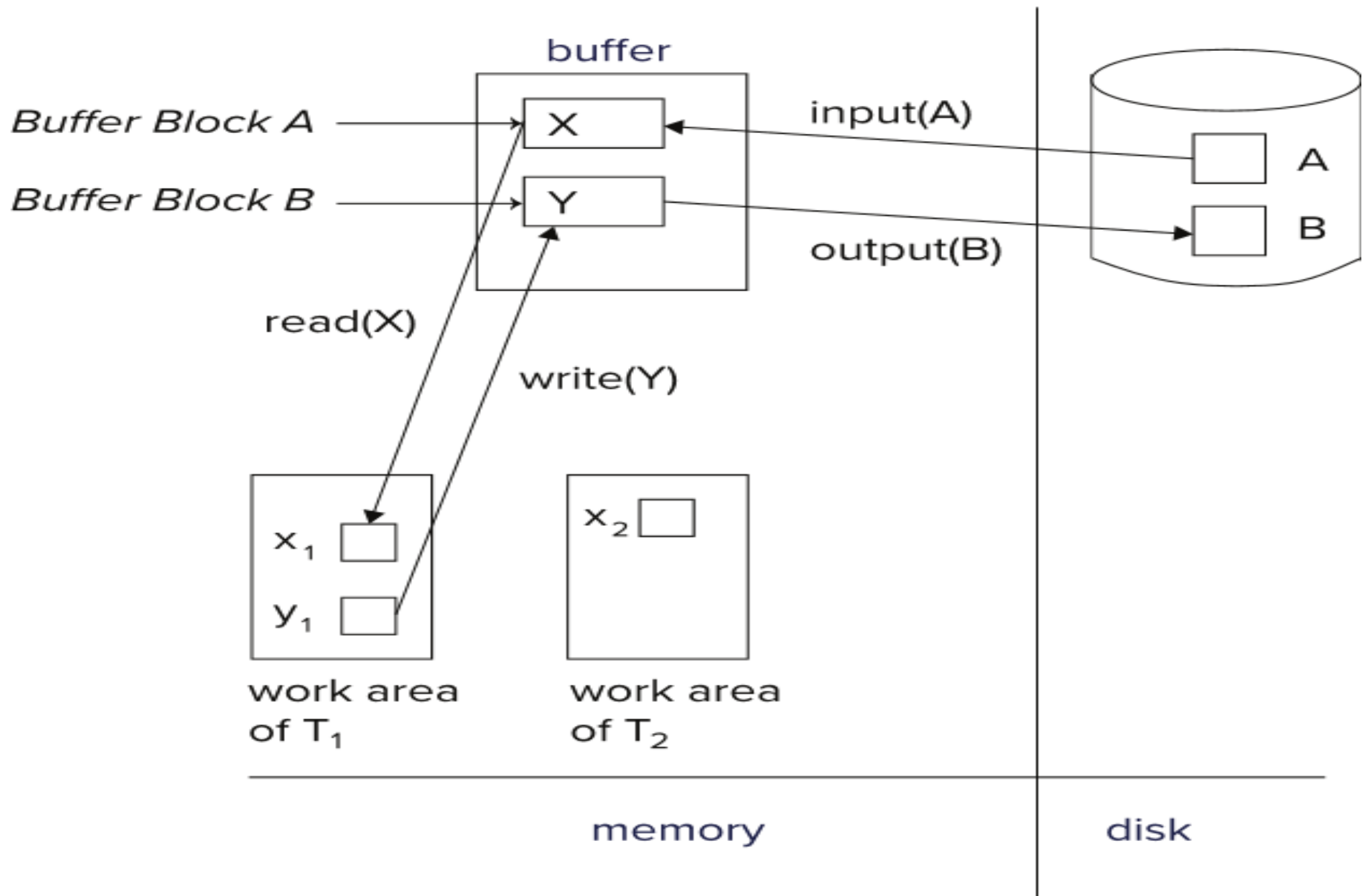
19.2.1 Data Access

- Data are transferred between disk and main memory in units of **blocks** (4 to 16 kilobytes typically)
- **Physical blocks** are those blocks residing on the disk.
- Database system reduce the number of disk accesses by keeping as many blocks as possible in main memory.
- **Buffer** is portion of main memory available to store copies of physical blocks. This buffer is shared by all transactions.
- **Buffer blocks** are the blocks residing temporarily in the buffer.
- Block movements between disk and main memory are initiated through the following two operations:
 - **input** (B) transfers the physical block B to the buffer.
 - **output** (B) transfers the buffer block B to the disk, and replaces the appropriate physical block there.



Data Access (Cont.)

- Each transaction T_i has its private work-area in which local variables are kept.
- Transaction T_i accesses database using two operations:
 - **read**(X) assigns the value of data item X to the local variable x_i .
 - a. If the block B_X on which X resides is not in the buffer, it issues $\text{input}(B_X)$.
 - b. It assigns to x_i the value of X from the block B_X .
 - **write**(Y) assigns the value of local variable y_i to data item Y in the buffer.
 - a. If block B_Y on which Y resides is not in the buffer, it issues $\text{input}(B_Y)$.
 - b. It assigns the value of y_i to Y in the block B_Y .



output(B_Y) need not immediately follow **write(Y)**. System can perform the output operation when it deems appropriate.



19.3.2 Log-Based Recovery

The most commonly used technique for recovery

Database Principle and Design



Log Records

- A database **log** is a sequence of **log records**. The records keep information about update activities on the database.
- For **log records** to be useful for recovery from system failures, the **log** must be kept on **stable** storage
- Among the types of log records are:
 - $\langle T_i \text{ start} \rangle$. Transaction T_i has started.
 - $\langle T_i \text{ commit} \rangle$. Transaction T_i has committed.
 - $\langle T_i \text{ abort} \rangle$. Transaction T_i has aborted.
 - $\langle T_i, X, V_1, V_2 \rangle$. Transaction T_i has performed a write on data item X . X had value V_1 before the write and has value V_2 after the write.
- The volume of data stored in the log may become unreasonably large. Unlike data in the database, these log information can be deleted at an appropriate time.



Example 19-1

T0	T1	Log	Buffer	Database (A=90, B=60)
read (A); A := A - 5; write (A); read (B); B := B + 5; write (B); commit		<T₀ start> <T₀, A, 90, 85> <T₀, B, 60, 65> <T₀ commit> <T₁ start>	A = 90 A = 85 B = 60 B = 65	A=85, B=65
	read (B); B := B - 10; write (B); fail	 <T ₁ , B, 65, 55>	B = 65 B = 55 ...	
				... B = 55



Recovering from Failure

- When recovering after failure:
 - Transaction T_i needs to be redone if the log
 - contains the records $\langle T_i \text{ start} \rangle$
 - and contains the record $\langle T_i \text{ commit} \rangle$ or $\langle T_i \text{ abort} \rangle$
 - Transaction T_i needs to be undone if the log
 - contains the record $\langle T_i \text{ start} \rangle$,
 - but does not contain either the record $\langle T_i \text{ commit} \rangle$ or the record $\langle T_i \text{ abort} \rangle$.



Redo and Undo Transactions

- **redo**(T_i) -- sets the value of all data items updated by T_i to the new values, going forward from the first log record for T_i
- **undo**(T_i) -- restores the value of all data items updated by T_i to their old values, going backwards from the last log record for T_i
 - Each time a data item X is restored to its old value V , a special log record $\langle T_i, X, V \rangle$ is written out, which is called **undo-only** log record,
 - When undo of a transaction is complete, a log record $\langle T_i, \mathbf{abort} \rangle$ is written out.



Recovering from Failure (Example)

Log	Database (A=90, B=55)
<T₀ start> <T₀, A, 90, 85> <T₀, B, 60, 65> <T₀ commit> <T₁ start> <T₁, B, 65, 55> <T₁, B, 65> <T₁ abort>	A=85 B=65 B=65



Example of Database Recovery

Below we show the log as it appears at three instances of time.

$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, A, 1000, 950 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, B, 2000, 2050 \rangle$

(a)

$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, A, 1000, 950 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, B, 2000, 2050 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0 \text{ commit} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1, C, 700, 600 \rangle$

(b)

$\langle T_0 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, A, 1000, 950 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0, B, 2000, 2050 \rangle$
 $\langle T_0 \text{ commit} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1 \text{ start} \rangle$
 $\langle T_1, C, 700, 600 \rangle$
 $\langle T_1 \text{ commit} \rangle$

(c)

Recovery actions in each case above are:

(a) undo (T_0): B is restored to 2000 and A to 1000, and log records $\langle T_0, B, 2000 \rangle$, $\langle T_0, A, 1000 \rangle$, $\langle T_0, \mathbf{abort} \rangle$ are written out

(b) redo (T_0) : A and B are set to 950 and 2050 respectively;

undo (T_1) : C is restored to 700. Log records $\langle T_1, C, 700 \rangle$, $\langle T_1, \mathbf{abort} \rangle$ are written out.

(c) redo (T_0) : A and B are set to 950 and 2050 respectively;

redo (T_1) : C is set to 600



Checkpoints

- Redoing/undoing all transactions recorded in the log can be very slow
 - Processing the entire log is time-consuming if the system has run for a long time
 - We might unnecessarily redo transactions which have already output their updates to the database.
- Optimize recovery procedure by periodically performing **checkpointing**
 1. All updates are stopped while doing checkpointing
 2. Output all modified buffer blocks to the disk.
 3. Write a log record **< checkpoint L >** where L is a list of all transactions active at the time of checkpoint.
- After a system crash has occurred, the system examines the log to find the last **< checkpoint L >** record. Only transactions that are in L or started after the checkpoint need to be redone or undone

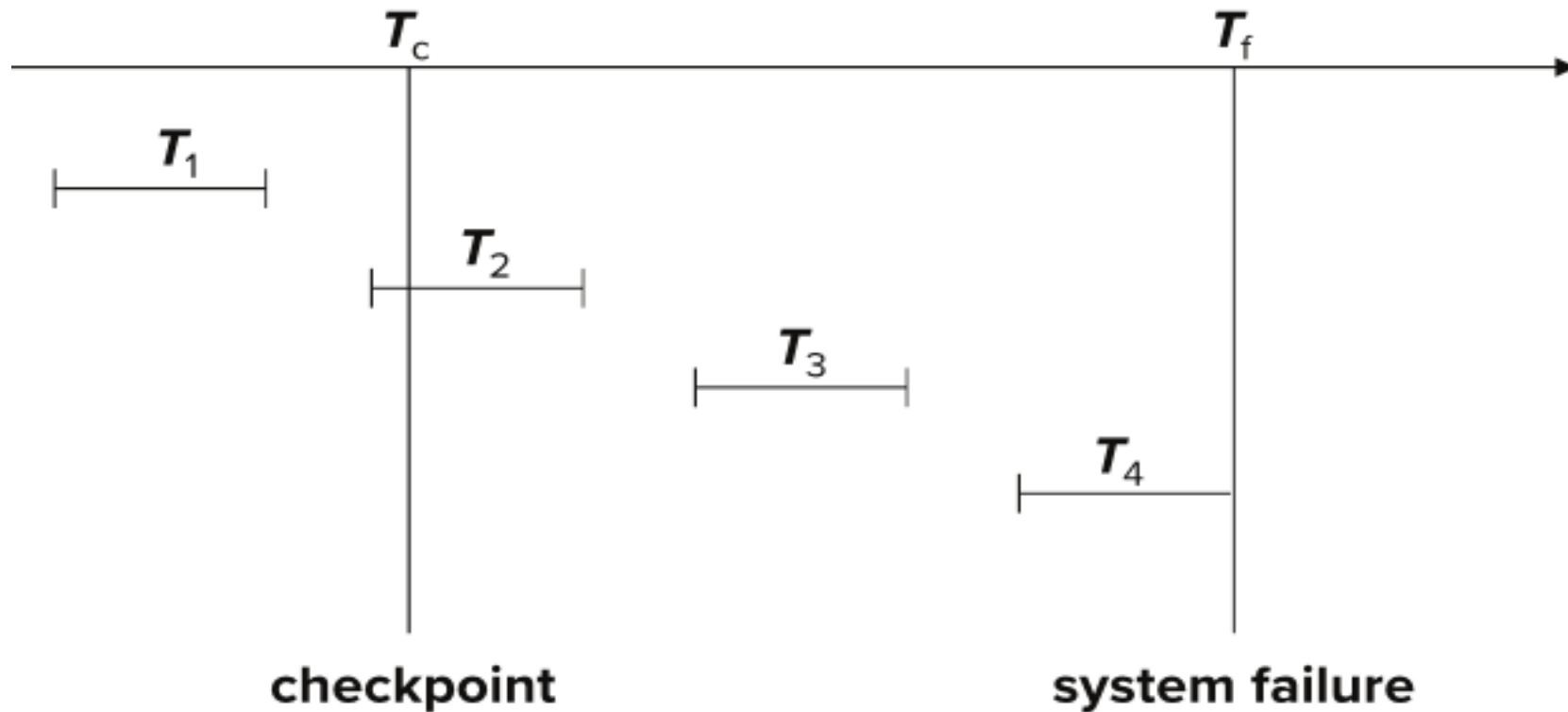


Checkpoints(Example 19-1)

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read (A); A := A - 5; write (A); read (B); B := B + 5; write (B); commit		<T₀ start> <T₀, A, 90, 85> <T₀, B, 60, 65> <T₀ commit> <T₁ start>	A = 90 A = 85 B = 60 B = 65	
	read (B); B := B - 10; write (B); 	<T ₁ , B, 65, 55> ...	B = 55 ...	...
		<checkpoint T1>		A=85, B=55



Example of Checkpoints



- T_1 can be ignored (updates already output to disk due to checkpoint)
- T_2 and T_3 redone.
- T_4 undone



19.4 Backup and Restore

- To survive disaster, the database system needs to use backup and restore technique.
- Database **backup** is to make a copy of data in a database so that the additional copy can be used to restore the original one in case of disaster.
 - The copies generated in the backup should be kept in different locations.
- Database **restore** is to use a backup of a database to recover the database to the state when the backup is made



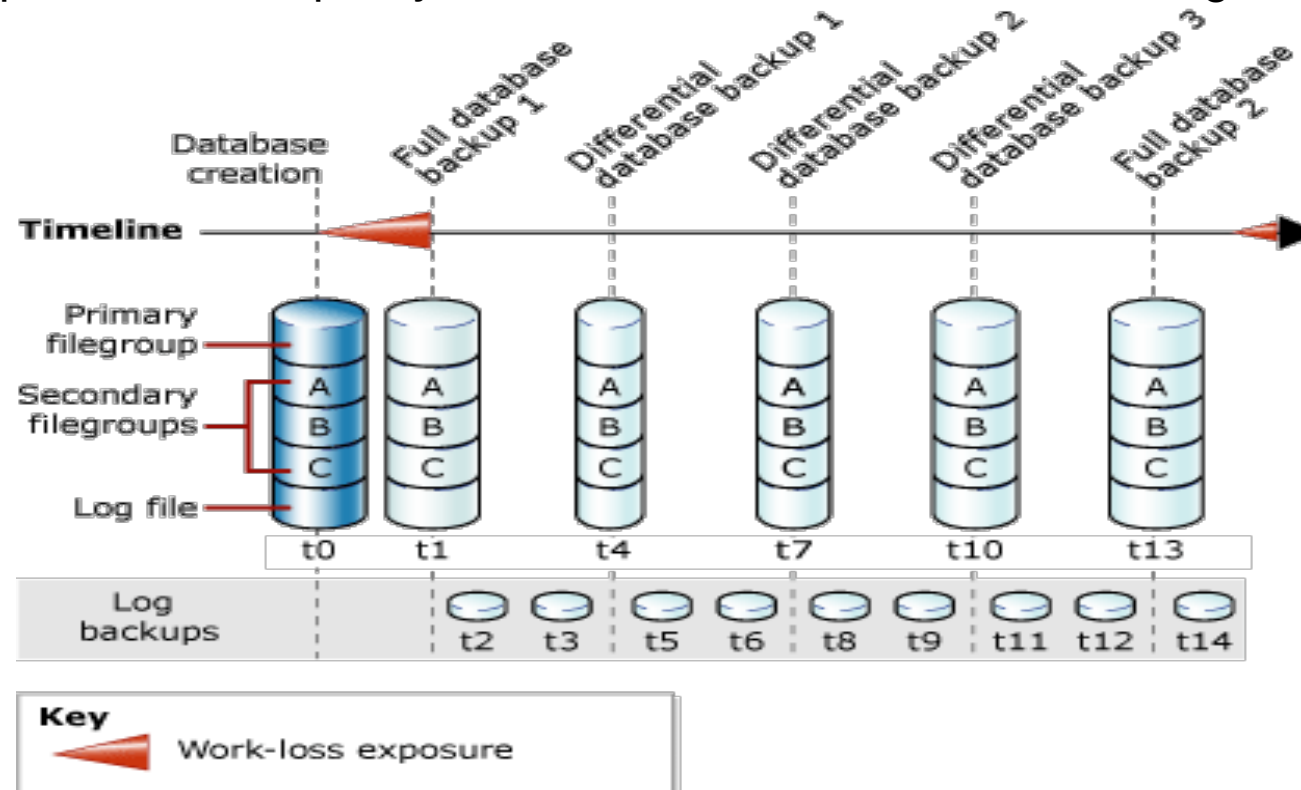
Types of Backup

- Complete backup
 - Copy all the data in the database
 - Slow and take a lot of disk space when the database is large in scale
- Differential backup
 - Copy data that have been created or changed since the last complete backup
 - Faster and takes less disk space therefore can be done more frequently
- Log backup
 - Backup the logs after last backup
 - Can be done even more frequently



Backup Policy

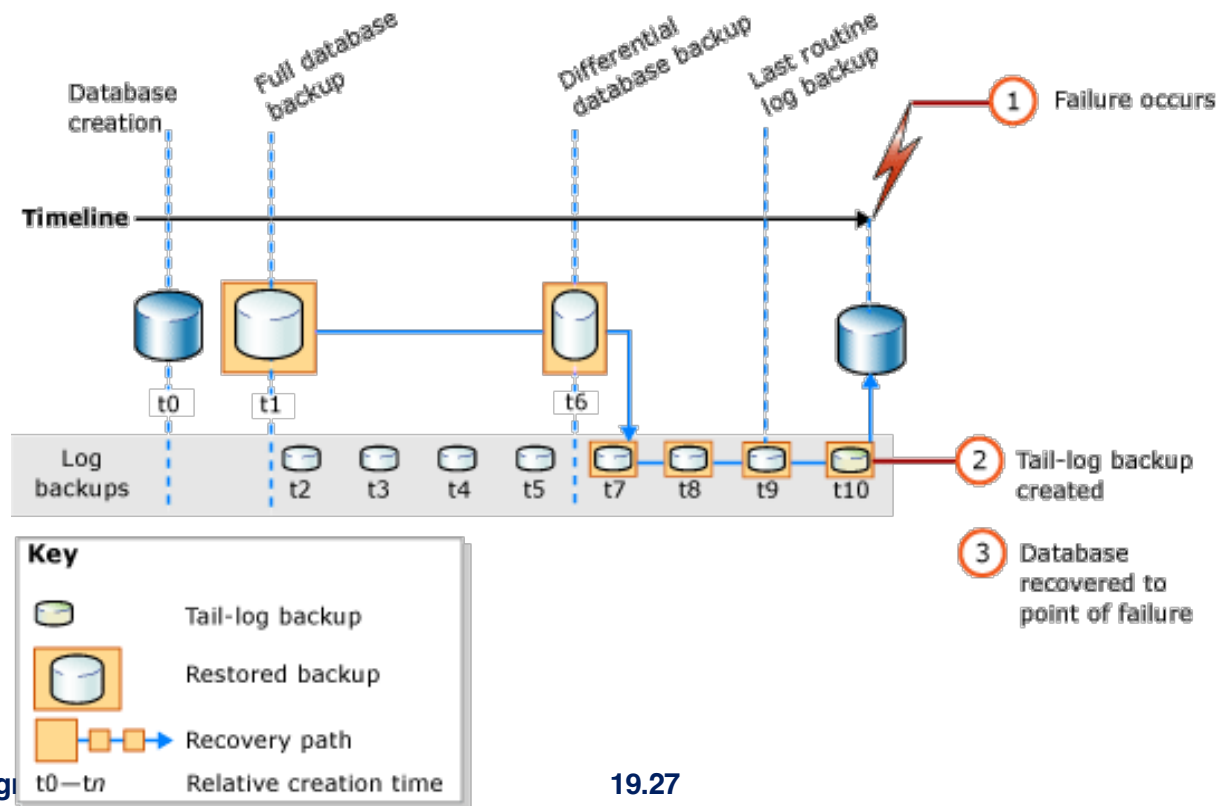
- Backup policy defines the type and frequency of backups
- Use several types of backups together to achieve efficient and frequent backup
- A typical backup policy:
 - complete backup every week
 - differential backup every day between two complete backups
 - log backup every 2 hours between two non-log backups
- The backup effect of this policy is that at most 2 hours of data changes may be lost.





Data Restore

- Restore the database to the point of failure using database complete backup, differential backup, and log backup
 - If possible, try creating a *tail-log* backup before the failure
 - Restore the most recent complete backup – *complete restore*
 - Restore the most recent differential backup -- *differential restore*
 - Redo all the transactions using log backups taken after the most recent differential backup.– *log restores*





End of Chapter 19